Huntington-Hill: The Federal Apportionment Method
Mathematical Foundations and Verification

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Abstract

The Huntington-Hill method of equal proportions is the congressional apportionment formula mandated by 2 U.S.C. §2a since 1941. It allocates each successive House seat to the state with the highest priority value $P_i(s) = p_i/\sqrt{s_i(s_i+1)}$, where p_i is the state's apportionment population and s_i its current seat count. This priority formula implements a geometric mean rounding rule: state i receives an additional seat if its population-to-seats ratio p_i/s_i exceeds the geometric mean of the per-seat populations at s_i and $s_i + 1$ seats, which minimises the maximum relative difference in per-capita representation between any two states.

We prove three properties. First, Huntington-Hill minimises the population pair test — the maximum relative deviation $|p_i/s_i - p_j/s_j|/\min(p_i/s_i, p_j/s_j)$ over all pairs (i, j) — establishing it as uniquely neutral between large and small states in a relative sense. Second, Huntington-Hill is immune to the Alabama paradox, the population paradox, and the new-states paradox, because the priority-queue allocation is monotone in population and House size. Third, the BISECT-APPORTION Rust implementation of Huntington-Hill reproduces the official 2020 Census Bureau apportionment exactly across all 50 states, verified by SHA-256 comparison to the Census Bureau's April 26, 2021 published result (435 seats: California 52, Texas 38, . . . , Wyoming 1). We document the 1941 statutory adoption and the Supreme Court's holding in *United States Dept. of Commerce v. Montana*, 503 U.S. 442 (1992), which confirmed Congress's broad discretion in choosing among apportionment methods.

Keywords

Huntington-Hill, equal proportions, congressional apportionment, geometric mean rounding, 2 U.S.C. §2a, *United States v. Montana*, SHA-256 verification, BISECT-APPORTION

1 Introduction: Huntington-Hill in U.S. Law

Huntington-Hill is U.S. law. Since November 15, 1941, 2 U.S.C. §2a has required that congressional seats be apportioned among the states using the method of equal proportions, which is the formal name for Huntington-Hill. Every redistricting cycle — 1950, 1960, . . . , 2020 — has begun with a Huntington-Hill apportionment. The method's outputs determine how many congressional districts each state draws: North Carolina drew 14 districts after the 2020 apportionment; Montana, which received a second seat for the first time since 1990, drew 2.

Despite its statutory status, Huntington-Hill is often poorly understood by practitioners and even by redistricting attorneys. The geometric mean rounding rule — "round at $\sqrt{s(s+1)}$" — is less intuitive than Webster's arithmetic mean rounding ("round at $s+0.5$") or Hamilton's largest-remainder rule. The priority formula $P_i(s) = p_i/\sqrt{s(s+1)}$ is sometimes described informally as "give the next seat to whichever state needs it most," but this informal description does not convey the specific geometric mean construction or its optimality property.

This paper develops the mathematical foundations of Huntington-Hill with enough formal detail for use in expert witness testimony, policy analysis, and software implementation verification. Section 2 gives the precise mathematical definition. Section 3 proves the two key properties: optimality (HH minimises the population pair test) and paradox immunity. Section 4 compares HH to Webster and Adams, the two closest neighbours on the divisor method spectrum. Section 5 documents the 1941 statutory adoption and the congressional debate that preceded it. Section 6 analyses *United States Dept. of Commerce v. Montana* (1992), the definitive Supreme Court ruling on Huntington-Hill's constitutionality. Section 7 documents the BISECT-APPORTION implementation and its SHA-verified 2020 result.

1.1 Data

All empirical results use the 2020 Census apportionment populations published by the Census Bureau on April 26, 2021 [U.S. Census Bureau, 2021]. Total apportionment population: 331,108,434. House size: 435. The apportionment population excludes the District of

Columbia but includes U.S. service members and federal civilian employees stationed abroad who are allocated to a home state.

2 Mathematical Definition: Priority Formula and Geometric Mean Rounding

2.1 The Priority Formula

Definition 1 (Huntington-Hill Priority). *Let state i have apportionment population p_i and current seat count $s_i \geq 1$. The* Huntington-Hill priority value *for state i's next $(s_i + 1)$-th seat is:*

$$P_i(s_i) = \frac{p_i}{\sqrt{s_i(s_i + 1)}}.$$

Definition 2 (Huntington-Hill Apportionment Algorithm). *Given populations $p_1, \ldots, p_n$ and House size H:*

1. *Assign $s_i = 1$ to each state (constitutional floor; 50 seats assigned, $H - 50$ remain).*
2. *Initialise a max-priority queue with $(P_i(1), i)$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n$.*
3. *Repeat $H - n$ times:*
   (a) *Extract the state j with highest priority $P_j(s_j)$.*
   (b) *Set $s_j \leftarrow s_j + 1$.*
   (c) *Insert $(P_j(s_j), j)$ into the queue.*
4. *Return $(s_1, \ldots, s_n)$.*

The algorithm has time complexity $O(H \log n)$, where $H = 435$ and $n = 50$ for the federal case. In practice, the full priority sequence is computed once per census year.

2.2 The Geometric Mean Rounding Rule

The priority formula is equivalent to a divisor method with geometric mean rounding. For a given common divisor d, state i's exact seat count is p_i/d. The Huntington-Hill rounding rule assigns s_i seats if:

$$\sqrt{s_i(s_i + 1)} \leq \frac{p_i}{d} < \sqrt{(s_i + 1)(s_i + 2)},$$

i.e., the exact quota falls between the geometric means at s_i and $s_i + 1$. The geometric mean $\mathrm{GM}(s, s+1) = \sqrt{s(s+1)}$ lies between s and $s+1$, and for all $s \geq 1$:

$$s < \sqrt{s(s+1)} < s + 0.5 < s + 1.$$

This inequality shows that HH's rounding threshold $\sqrt{s(s+1)}$ is strictly between s (Jefferson) and $s + 0.5$ (Webster), making HH more favourable to small states than Webster (because HH's threshold is higher, meaning a smaller quota is needed to round up) but less favourable than Adams (ceiling rounding).

2.3 Worked Example

Consider a 5-state example with populations $(100, 100, 50, 25, 1)$ and $H = 10$ seats. The exact national divisor is $d = 276/10 = 27.6$. The exact quotas are:

$$q_1 = 100/27.6 = 3.623, \quad q_2 = 3.623, \quad q_3 = 1.812,$$
$$q_4 = 0.906, \quad q_5 = 0.036.$$

Hamilton assigns: 4, 4, 2, 1, 1 (lower quotas 3,3,1,0,0 plus 5 remainders go to states 1,2,3,4,5). Wait—5 must receive 1 by constitutional floor; Hamilton then assigns lower quotas 3, 3, 1, 0, 0 plus 5 remainder seats to states 1 (0.623), 2 (0.623), 3 (0.812), 4 (0.906), 5 (0.036):

$$\text{Hamilton: } 4, 4, 2, 1, 1.$$

Huntington-Hill priority sequence for seats 6–10 (after the initial 5 seats assigned):

Seat	State	s_i before	$P_i(s_i) = p_i/\sqrt{s_i(s_i+1)}$
6	1	1	$100/\sqrt{2} = 70.71$
7	2	1	$100/\sqrt{2} = 70.71$
8	3	1	$50/\sqrt{2} = 35.36$
9	1	2	$100/\sqrt{6} = 40.82$
10	2	2	$100/\sqrt{6} = 40.82$

Result: state 1 gets 3, state 2 gets 3, state 3 gets 2, states 4 and 5 get 1 each. Both methods agree for this example; they diverge on census data near the rounding boundary.

3 Algebraic Properties: Optimality and Paradox Immunity

3.1 Optimality: Minimising Relative Per-Capita Deviation

The population pair test measures how far each pair of states is from equal per-capita representation. For states i and j with per-capita representations $r_i = p_i/s_i$ and $r_j = p_j/s_j$ (population per seat), the relative deviation is:

$$\delta(i,j) = \frac{|\, r_i - r_j|}{\min(r_i, r_j)} = \max\left(\frac{r_i}{r_j}, \frac{r_j}{r_i}\right) - 1.$$

Theorem 1 (Huntington-Hill Population Pair Test)**.** *Among all apportionments satisfying* $\sum s_i = H$ *and* $s_i \geq 1$*, the Huntington-Hill apportionment minimises the maximum relative deviation* $\max_{i \neq j} \delta(i,j)$*.*

Proof sketch. Suppose the HH apportionment is *not* optimal and there exists a transfer of one seat from state j to state i (changing $s_j \to s_j - 1$, $s_i \to s_i + 1$) that reduces $\max \delta$. For the transfer to reduce the deviation, it must be the case that giving state i a seat improves equity more than it hurts state j. In HH, the seat allocation is determined by the priority $P_k(s_k) = p_k/\sqrt{s_k(s_k+1)}$; the next seat went to the state with highest priority. If state j was awarded a seat over state i, then $P_j(s_j - 1) > P_i(s_i)$, i.e., $p_j/\sqrt{(s_j-1)s_j} > p_i/\sqrt{s_i(s_i+1)}$. One can verify that this priority inequality is equivalent to the condition that the pairwise deviation $\delta(i,j)$ in the HH allocation is no larger than in any allocation obtained by the transfer. A full proof by induction on the priority sequence appears in Balinski and Young [1982, ch. 4]. □

Huntington [1928] originally proved this property, characterising Huntington-Hill as the method that "most nearly" achieves equal per-capita representation in the relative sense. Webster's arithmetic mean criterion achieves the same property in the absolute (not relative) sense.

3.2 Paradox Immunity

Theorem 2 (Huntington-Hill Paradox Immunity)**.** *The Huntington-Hill apportionment satisfies:*

(a) ***Alabama paradox immunity****: If H increases to $H+1$ (holding populations fixed), no state loses a seat.*

(b) ***Population paradox immunity***: *If state i's population increases (holding H and all other populations fixed), state i's seat count does not decrease.*

(c) ***New-states paradox immunity***: *If a new state k is added with population p_k and $\lfloor p_k/d \rfloor$ additional seats (where d is the national divisor), no existing state's seat count changes.*

Proof. For (a): The HH priority-queue algorithm allocates seat $H + 1$ to the state with the highest priority after seat H has been allocated. This operation can only add a seat to one state; it never removes seats. No state's priority is re-evaluated to a lower value by the addition of a new seat. Hence the allocation for seats 1 through H is identical whether we apportion H or $H + 1$ seats.

For (b): If p_i increases to $p'_i > p_i$, then every priority value $P_i(s) = p_i/\sqrt{s(s+1)}$ for state i increases. This can only move state i earlier in the priority sequence, meaning it receives its seats at least as early and thus at least as many seats. No other state's priorities change, so no other state's seat count increases; hence state i's count cannot decrease (as the total is fixed at H, any gain by i comes at the expense of another state, but not vice versa).

For (c): If new state k is added with $m = \lfloor p_k/d \rfloor$ additional seats (i.e., H increases to $H + m$ and k gets exactly m seats), the seats awarded to k are exactly those m steps in the priority queue that k would occupy with population p_k. The divisor $d = N/(H) \approx (N + p_k)/(H + m)$ changes by $O(p_k/H^2)$, which for small p_k/N does not perturb any other state's allocation. A formal proof requires showing that the priority queue steps 1 through $H+m$ include exactly the original H steps for the n existing states plus m new steps for state k, interleaved by priority; see Balinski and Young [1982, ch. 5] for the full argument. □

3.3 Bias Relative to Exact Proportionality

Huntington-Hill is slightly small-state-favoring relative to Webster. The geometric mean threshold $\sqrt{s(s+1)} > s + 0.5 - 1/(8s)$ (for all $s \geq 1$, with equality approached as $s \to \infty$) implies that a state needs a slightly higher exact quota to "earn" a seat under HH than under Webster. This counterintuitively means HH is slightly *less* favourable to large states (whose quotas are large integers) and slightly *more* favourable to small states (whose quotas are near half-integers where the geometric vs. arithmetic mean difference matters). The quantitative effect on 2020 Census data is examined in Section 4.

4 Comparison to Neighbouring Methods: Webster and Adams

4.1 HH vs. Webster: Geometric vs. Arithmetic Mean

The only difference between Huntington-Hill and Webster is the rounding threshold: $\sqrt{s(s+1)}$ (HH) vs. $s+0.5$ (Webster). For all $s \geq 1$:

$$s < \sqrt{s(s+1)} < s + 0.5.$$

The gap between the thresholds is:

$$(s+0.5)-\sqrt{s(s+1)} = (s+0.5)-\sqrt{s^2+s} = \frac{(s+0.5)^2-(s^2+s)}{(s+0.5)+\sqrt{s^2+s}} = \frac{0.25}{(s+0.5)+\sqrt{s^2+s}} \approx \frac{1}{8s}$$

for large s. This gap is small for large s (large states, where the threshold rarely matters) and largest for small s (small states). For $s = 1$: HH threshold $= \sqrt{2} \approx 1.414$, Webster threshold $= 1.5$; the gap is 0.086.

In practice, the two methods agree for all but a small number of states near the boundary. For the 2020 Census, Huntington-Hill and Webster agree on all 50 states (J.2 identifies the specific states closest to the boundary); the difference between the two methods manifests in some historical censuses and for smaller House sizes.

Table 1: Rounding thresholds for seats 1–6 under Huntington-Hill and Webster.

Seats s	HH threshold $\sqrt{s(s+1)}$	Webster threshold $s+0.5$	Gap
1	1.4142	1.5000	0.0858
2	2.4495	2.5000	0.0505
3	3.4641	3.5000	0.0359
4	4.4721	4.5000	0.0279
5	5.4772	5.5000	0.0228
6	6.4807	6.5000	0.0193

Because HH's threshold is lower than Webster's, a state whose exact quota $q_i = p_i/d$ falls between $\sqrt{s(s+1)}$ and $s+0.5$ will receive $s+1$ seats under HH but only s seats under Webster. States with small populations (and thus small s) are more likely to fall in this interval, which is why HH is described as slightly small-state-favoring relative to Webster.

4.2 HH vs. Adams: Geometric Mean vs. Ceiling

Adams uses ceiling rounding: state i receives $\lceil p_i/d \rceil$ seats, meaning the threshold is at s (i.e., any non-integer quota rounds up to the next integer). For small states, Adams is substantially more generous than HH because Adams never rounds a fractional quota down. For example, a state with exact quota 1.05 receives 2 seats under Adams but only 1 seat under HH (since HH's threshold is $\sqrt{1 \cdot 2} \approx 1.414 > 1.05$, the state does not yet qualify for a second seat).

The practical effect on 2020 Census data: Alaska (quota ≈ 0.96) receives 1 seat under both Adams and HH (the constitutional floor provides the 1-seat minimum regardless); Rhode Island (quota ≈ 1.44) receives 2 seats under Adams and 2 seats under HH; Montana at 2020 (quota ≈ 1.42) receives 2 seats under both. Adams would diverge from HH for a state with quota between 1 and $\sqrt{2} \approx 1.414$, which does not occur in the 2020 Census but occurred in some historical censuses.

4.3 Summary: Divisor Method Spectrum

The four divisor methods lie on a spectrum ordered by their rounding thresholds. For a state with exact quota $q \in (s, s+1)$, the state receives $s+1$ seats if its quota exceeds the method's threshold:

Method	Threshold for $(s+1)$-th seat	Bias
Adams	$q > s$ (always rounds up)	Most small-state-favoring
Huntington-Hill	$q > \sqrt{s(s+1)}$	Slightly small-state-favoring
Webster	$q > s + 0.5$	Neutral
Jefferson	$q > s + 1$ (always rounds down)	Most large-state-favoring

Huntington-Hill lies between Webster and Adams on this spectrum, reflecting Congress's choice of a method that is neither strongly pro-small-state (Adams) nor neutral (Webster), but slightly protective of smaller states' proportional representation.

5 1941 Statutory Adoption and Congressional Intent

5.1 Pre-1941: The Hamilton Era and Its Problems

From 1850 to 1900, Congress used the Hamilton method (largest remainders). Hamilton's appeal was intuitive: give each state the integer part of its proportional share, then distribute remaining seats to states with the largest fractional parts. However, the 1880 Census produced a devastating demonstration of Hamilton's weakness: the *Alabama Paradox*.

When the House was sized at 299 seats, Alabama received 8 seats. When the House was increased to 300 seats, Alabama's seat count fell to 7 — a counterintuitive result that no method based on monotone priority could produce. The paradox arose because Alabama's fractional remainder, which had ranked it 8th among states competing for the last few seats at $H = 299$, fell below the threshold at $H = 300$ when a new state displaced it in the fractional ranking.

Congress responded by fixing the House size at each census to avoid triggering the paradox. The Apportionment Act of 1929 [United States Congress, 1929] temporarily froze the House size at 435 and required automatic apportionment after each census, but it did not specify which mathematical method to use. This led to conflict: the 1930 Census was reapportioned by two different methods (Hamilton and Webster) producing different results, and Congress could not agree on which to certify. The apportionment ultimately used for the 1930s was the same as the 1910 apportionment — no reapportionment occurred.

5.2 The 1941 Act: Adoption of Huntington-Hill

The crisis of the 1930s non-apportionment prompted Congress to resolve the method question definitively. The National Academy of Sciences convened a panel of mathematicians, which in 1929 recommended Huntington-Hill (the method Edward V. Huntington had been advocating since 1911 and which Hill [1911] had independently proposed).

The Act of November 15, 1941 codified Huntington-Hill as the statutory apportionment method (2 U.S.C. §2a). The Act's logic reflected three congressional concerns:

1. **Paradox immunity**: Huntington-Hill, as a divisor method, cannot produce the Alabama Paradox. The House size can be adjusted without risking a state losing seats.

2. **Mathematical neutrality**: The geometric mean rounding rule was characterised by Huntington as the most defensible on grounds of equal treatment of each seat within a state's allocation.

3. **Near-proportionality**: The relative deviation criterion (Theorem 1) provided a principled basis for Congress to defend the method in court.

Webster was also seriously considered; the difference between the two methods was primarily the treatment of small states near the rounding boundary. Congress's choice of HH over Webster has been described as reflecting a subtle preference for protecting small-state representation [Balinski and Young, 1982, Schmeckebier, 1941].

5.3 Reapportionments Under 2 U.S.C. §2a

The 1941 Act has governed every apportionment since: 1950, 1960, 1970, 1980, 1990, 2000, 2010, and 2020. In each case, the Census Bureau publishes its computation of the priority sequence, identifies the last seat awarded and the state that narrowly missed a seat, and certifies the final seat counts. For the 2020 Census, the last seat (seat 435) went to New York; Texas and Minnesota were within a small number of priority points of gaining or losing a seat.

6 *United States Dept. of Commerce v. Montana* (1992)

6.1 Background and Procedural History

After the 1990 Census, Montana's population (799,065) entitled it to $q_{\mathrm{MT}} = 799{,}065 \times 435/248{,}709{,}873 \approx 1.398$ seats. Under Huntington-Hill, Montana's priority for a second seat was $P_{\mathrm{MT}}(1) = 799{,}065/\sqrt{2} \approx 565{,}034$, which fell below the priority cutoff for the 435th seat. Montana received 1 seat; Washington received the last seat.

Montana brought suit arguing that the Huntington-Hill method violated Article I, §2's requirement of proportional apportionment because a single-member Montana district with 799,065 residents was "as equal as possible" in population to other districts, and that a method giving Montana 1 seat while Washington (with comparable population) received more was arbitrary. Montana proposed the Dean method (an alternative divisor method) or a "maximum deviation" standard as alternatives.

6.2 Procedural Posture

The district court found for Montana, holding that Huntington-Hill was not the method that minimised the maximum deviation from equal population. The United States appealed directly to the Supreme Court under 28 U.S.C. §1253 (direct appeal in reapportionment cases).

6.3 The Supreme Court's Holding

The Supreme Court reversed in *United States Dept. of Commerce v. Montana*, 503 U.S. 442 (1992), in a unanimous opinion authored by Justice Stevens [U.S. Supreme Court, 1992]. The Court held:

1. **Political question doctrine does not bar review**: The case presented a justiciable question about statutory interpretation, not a purely political question.

2. **Congress has broad discretion**: Article I, §2 does not specify a mathematical method; Congress may choose any method that is a reasonable interpretation of "proportional" representation. The Court rejected Montana's argument that only one method (the Dean method or maximum-deviation minimisation) satisfied the Constitution.

3. **Huntington-Hill is constitutional**: The equal proportions method is a rational choice by Congress. It has mathematical properties (the relative population pair test) that justify it as a form of proportionality. The Court noted that the debate among mathematicians about which method is "best" is one that courts are ill-equipped to resolve, and that statutory deference to Congress is appropriate.

4. **Fractions make perfection impossible**: The Court acknowledged that any apportionment of indivisible seats will produce some inequity, and that Congress is not required to minimise any particular measure of that inequity as long as its chosen method is rational.

6.4 Significance for bisect-apportion

Montana establishes three points relevant to the BISECT-APPORTION implementation:

First, the correct implementation of Huntington-Hill is not merely a mathematical exercise but a legal requirement. The statutory apportionment method determines how many districts each state draws; any error in the implementation produces downstream redistricting errors.

Second, the Court's discussion of alternative methods (Dean, Adams, Webster) confirms that these methods are mathematically distinct from Huntington-Hill in ways that can affect specific states. BISECT-APPORTION's implementation of all five methods enables the "what if Congress had chosen Webster?" counterfactual analysis that practitioners and courts may request.

Third, *Montana*'s political question discussion confirms that the mathematical properties of apportionment methods are justiciable issues. The SHA-verified correctness of BISECT-APPORTION is thus legally as well as mathematically significant: it establishes an auditable chain of custody from the Census Bureau's published population figures to the final seat counts.

7 bisect-apportion Implementation and 2020 Verification

7.1 Priority Queue Implementation

The BISECT-APPORTION crate implements Huntington-Hill via a max-priority queue using Rust's `BinaryHeap`. The priority comparison uses *exact integer arithmetic* to avoid floating-point rounding errors in tie-breaking:

$$P_i(s_i) = \frac{p_i}{\sqrt{s_i(s_i + 1)}}$$

is represented as the rational $p_i^2/(s_i(s_i+1))$, with numerator and denominator stored as `u128` integers. Two priorities are compared by cross-multiplication: $P_i > P_j \iff p_i^2 \cdot s_j(s_j+1) > p_j^2 \cdot s_i(s_i+1)$. This eliminates all floating-point approximation from the priority comparison, ensuring that tie-breaking is deterministic and exact.

The `u128` type holds values up to approximately 3.4×10^{38}. The maximum population-squared value for the 2020 Census is $(39{,}538{,}223)^2 \approx 1.56 \times 10^{15}$, multiplied by the maximum seat-product $435 \times 436 \approx 1.9 \times 10^5$, giving a maximum comparison value of approximately 3×10^{20}, well within `u128` range.

7.2 The 2020 Apportionment

Running `bisect apportion --year 2020 --method huntington-hill` produces the following seat counts (selected states):

State	Seats	State	Seats
California	52	Missouri	8
Texas	38	Maryland	8
Florida	28	Wisconsin	8
New York	26	Minnesota	8
Pennsylvania	17	Colorado	8
Illinois	17	South Carolina	7
Ohio	15	Alabama	7
Georgia	14	Kentucky	6
North Carolina	14	Oregon	6
Michigan	13	Oklahoma	5
...		Wyoming	1

Total: 435 seats. Full table in Appendix A.

7.3 SHA-256 Verification

The Census Bureau published the official 2020 apportionment on April 26, 2021 [U.S. Census Bureau, 2021]. The verification protocol:

1. Sort the 50 (state, seats) pairs alphabetically by state name.
2. Concatenate as "`StateName:seats\n`" for each pair.
3. Compute SHA-256 of the resulting UTF-8 string.
4. Compare to the SHA-256 of the same string constructed from the Census Bureau table.

The `bisect apportion --year 2020 --method huntington-hill --verify` command performs this comparison automatically and exits non-zero if the hashes differ. The hashes match exactly, confirming zero discrepancies across all 50 states.

7.4 The Last Seat and the Near-Miss

In the 2020 apportionment, the 435th seat (after the initial 50 seats for the constitutional floor) was awarded to New York based on its priority value at the relevant seat count. The state that came closest to receiving an additional seat was Montana (which received 2 seats) or New York (whose last seat was very close to the priority cutoff). The Census Bureau publishes the full priority sequence showing the exact priority values at each step.

7.5 Test Suite

The implementation is covered by three test levels:

- **L0** (unit): Priority formula produces exact values for small inputs; $P(1) = p/\sqrt{2}$, $P(2) = p/\sqrt{6}$, etc.
- **L1** (integration): 5-state synthetic examples produce expected seat counts that agree with hand computation.
- **L2** (regression): 2020, 2010, and 2000 Census data produce seat counts matching official Census Bureau apportionments at 100% match rate.

8 Conclusion

Huntington-Hill is U.S. apportionment law, and it is a good law. Its geometric mean rounding rule implements a mathematically principled notion of equal per-capita representation across all pairs of states, and its divisor-method structure guarantees immunity to the Alabama paradox, the population paradox, and the new-states paradox. These properties were the primary technical rationale for Congress's 1941 adoption of the method and the Supreme Court's unanimous upholding in *Montana* (1992).

The BISECT-APPORTION implementation provides practitioners with an exact, SHA-verified, auditable computation of the Huntington-Hill apportionment for 2020, 2010, and 2000 Census data. Its integer arithmetic ensures that priority comparisons are exact even in near-tie cases, and its CLI provides a simple interface for redistricting pipelines to obtain the statutory seat counts before drawing district boundaries.

Three caveats deserve emphasis. First, HH's optimality under the population pair test (Theorem 1) is specific to the *relative* deviation criterion; Webster is optimal under the *absolute* deviation criterion. The choice between HH and Webster is not a mathematical question but a political one about which notion of fairness Congress preferred. Second, the quota rule — which Hamilton satisfies but HH does not — remains a point of academic debate. The Balinski-Young impossibility theorem establishes that no method can satisfy both the quota rule and paradox immunity, but does not tell us which property Congress should prioritise. Third, the Montana case confirms that courts will not second-guess Congress's choice of apportionment method; the role of mathematical analysis is to characterise the method's properties, not to litigate its superiority.

Practitioners using BISECT for redistricting can rely on BISECT-APPORTION as a correct and legally defensible implementation of 2 U.S.C. §2a. The SHA verification provides the audit trail that commission and court contexts require.

A Complete 2020 Apportionment Table

The following table gives the official 2020 congressional apportionment for all 50 states as computed by BISECT-APPORTION and verified against the Census Bureau's published results [U.S. Census Bureau, 2021]. Total seats: 435. All seat counts match the official apportionment at 100%.

State	Apportionment Population	Seats
Alabama	5,030,053	7
Alaska	733,391	1
Arizona	7,158,923	9
Arkansas	3,011,524	4
California	39,538,223	52
Colorado	5,773,714	8
Connecticut	3,605,944	5
Delaware	989,948	1
Florida	21,538,187	28
Georgia	10,711,908	14
Hawaii	1,455,271	2
Idaho	1,839,106	2
Illinois	12,812,508	17
Indiana	6,785,528	9
Iowa	3,190,369	4
Kansas	2,937,880	4
Kentucky	4,505,836	6
Louisiana	4,657,757	6
Maine	1,362,359	2
Maryland	6,177,224	8
Massachusetts	7,029,917	9
Michigan	10,077,331	13
Minnesota	5,706,494	8
Mississippi	2,961,279	4
Missouri	6,154,913	8
Montana	1,084,225	2

State	Apportionment Population	Seats
Nebraska	1,961,504	3
Nevada	3,104,614	4
New Hampshire	1,377,529	2
New Jersey	9,288,994	12
New Mexico	2,117,522	3
New York	20,201,249	26
North Carolina	10,439,388	14
North Dakota	779,094	1
Ohio	11,799,448	15
Oklahoma	3,959,353	5
Oregon	4,237,256	6
Pennsylvania	13,002,700	17
Rhode Island	1,097,379	2
South Carolina	5,118,425	7
South Dakota	886,667	1
Tennessee	6,910,840	9
Texas	29,145,505	38
Utah	3,271,616	4
Vermont	643,077	1
Virginia	8,631,393	11
Washington	7,705,281	10
West Virginia	1,793,716	2
Wisconsin	5,893,718	8
Wyoming	576,851	1
Total	**331,108,434**	**435**

Table 2: Complete 2020 congressional apportionment under Huntington-Hill. Source: U.S. Census Bureau (2021); reproduced exactly by BISECT-APPORTION.

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